

Mathematical and Physical Modeling of Entangled Photon Propagation in Optical Fibers for MATLAB Simulation

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Chapter 1

General Framework

1.1 Purpose and Scope

The purpose of this work is to establish a coherent framework for the mathematical modeling and numerical simulation of polarization-entangled photon pairs propagating through optical fibers.

The central objective is to organize the physical assumptions, mathematical formalism, and simulation strategy into a reproducible structure, so that each computational step can be traced back to a precise theoretical element. In this way, the simulator is not developed as an isolated numerical tool, but as a direct operational translation of the underlying quantum model.

The modeling approach adopted throughout this work is intentionally progressive. Simplified analytically tractable models are introduced first, and are then extended toward increasingly realistic descriptions incorporating statistical effects, decoherence, and effective noisy evolution.

This strategy enables a controlled connection between physical interpretation, analytical predictions, and numerical validation.

1.2 Theoretical Formalism and Notation

The system is described within the framework of quantum information theory. The relevant mathematical structures include finite-dimensional Hilbert spaces, quantum states, tensor products, unitary operators, density operators, and projective measurements.

Elements of classical optics are introduced only when required to justify the physical origin of the effective quantum transformations.

The notation and formal tools are aligned, as far as possible, with the framework developed in *Quantum Computation and Quantum Information* by Nielsen and Chuang [1].

Within this formalism:

- single subsystems are represented by vectors in $\mathbb{C}^2$,
- composite systems are described through tensor-product spaces,

- evolutions are represented by linear operators, unitary in the ideal case,
- measurements are described through Hermitian operators.

All states and operators are represented as vectors and matrices over $\mathbb{C}$, with dimensions determined by the tensor-product structure of the system.

1.3 Physical Scenario and Experimental Setting

The physical setting considered in this work is the following.

A spontaneous parametric down-conversion (SPDC) source generates pairs of entangled photons, ideally prepared in a Bell state.

The polarization degree of freedom is used to encode the qubit associated with each photon. The two photons are injected into distinct optical paths, denoted A and B , and propagate through independent optical fibers.

Each fiber acts on the polarization degree of freedom of the corresponding photon. In a general description, this action can be represented by a unitary operator acting on a single-qubit Hilbert space.

However, motivated by experimental constraints and by the limited degree of control available on the complete polarization transformation, the model is initially restricted to a simplified effective description.

After compensation of global polarization rotations, the dominant residual effect can be modeled as a relative phase shift between the horizontal and vertical polarization components.

In the qubit representation, this corresponds to a rotation around the computational Z -axis of the Bloch sphere.

The objective at this stage is therefore not to reproduce the full electromagnetic propagation inside optical fibers, but rather to construct an effective quantum model capable of capturing the relevant impact of fiber propagation on entanglement and measurable correlations.

1.4 Computational and Modeling Architecture

The computational framework developed in this work follows directly from the theoretical structure introduced in the previous sections. The simulator is designed as a modular numerical realization of the underlying quantum model, preserving a direct correspondence between physical concepts and computational components.

At the numerical level, pure states are represented as complex vectors, mixed states as density matrices, and physical evolutions and observables as matrix operators. This representation enables a unified treatment of unitary dynamics, statistical mixtures, expectation values, and effective noisy evolution within the same computational framework.

The simulator architecture is organized around distinct functional layers, including state preparation, operator construction, local evolution, observable evaluation, quantum channels, and experiment-specific routines. Each layer corresponds to a

well-defined theoretical block and can therefore be validated independently before being integrated into more advanced models.

Particular emphasis is placed on progressive model refinement. Simplified analytically tractable configurations are used as validation baselines before introducing increasingly realistic descriptions involving stochastic phase evolution, ensemble averaging, and non-unitary effects.

At the first modeling stage, unnecessary optical detail is neglected and each fiber is described exclusively through its effective action on polarization. This leads to a local unitary representation of the form

$$U_A \otimes U_B \tag{1.1}$$

where $U_A, U_B \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}$ are unitary operators.

This abstraction defines the fundamental interface between the physical system and the simulator, and will later allow the introduction of more refined models, including stochastic phase evolution, effective decoherence, and non-unitary quantum channels.

The overall objective of the computational framework is therefore not only to reproduce numerical results, but also to maintain analytical transparency, reproducibility, and consistency between theoretical predictions and numerical implementation throughout the progressive development of the model.

Chapter 2

Modeling Strategy

2.1 Progressive Modeling Philosophy

2.1.1 Progressive Modeling Approach

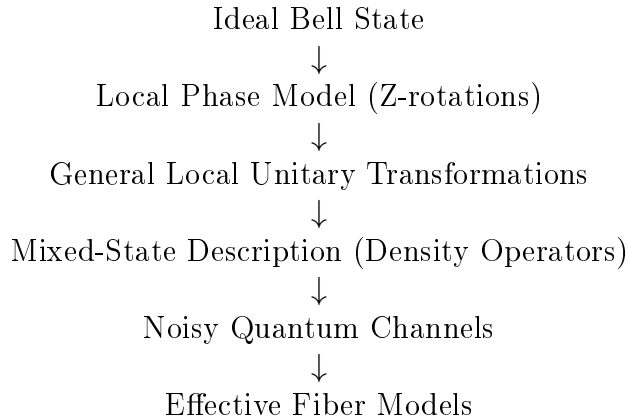
The modeling approach follows a progressive refinement strategy, in which the system is described through successive levels of approximation of increasing physical complexity.

Each stage introduces additional physical effects while remaining consistent with the previous ones. This ensures analytical transparency and preserves continuity between simplified and refined models.

From a theoretical perspective, this approach isolates the contribution of individual mechanisms. From a computational perspective, it enables a layered simulator structure, where each refinement corresponds to a well-defined extension of the existing codebase.

2.1.2 Hierarchy of Modeling Levels

The modeling workflow is structured as a sequence of progressively refined descriptions:



More explicitly:

- **Level 1: Minimal phase model** Pure, maximally entangled state with fiber action reduced to a relative phase. This level captures the analytical

dependence of correlation observables on a single parameter.

- **Level 2: General unitary dynamics** Arbitrary polarization rotations described by local operators $U_A \otimes U_B$.
- **Level 3: Mixed-state description** Density operators used to represent statistical mixtures and loss of coherence.
- **Level 4: Noisy quantum channels** Effective completely positive trace-preserving (CPTP) maps modeling depolarization and decoherence.
- **Level 5: Effective fiber models** Physically motivated descriptions, such as concatenations of random unitary segments or stochastic polarization evolution.

This hierarchy defines the conceptual roadmap of the present work.

The initial levels remain analytically tractable and allow direct validation, while the later levels progressively increase physical realism and connect to experimentally relevant propagation effects.

2.2 Baseline Quantum Model

2.2.1 Pure-State Description

At the first stage, the bipartite system is described as a pure state in $\mathbb{C}^2 \otimes \mathbb{C}^2$, and fiber propagation is modeled through local unitary transformations.

Particular emphasis is placed on relative phase shifts induced by the fibers.

The main objective is to analyze how these phase shifts affect measurable two-photon correlations.

The relevant observables are operators of the form

$$\sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j, \quad i, j \in \{x, y, z\},$$

as well as operators corresponding to arbitrary measurement directions on the Bloch sphere.

These operators play a central role because they describe joint local measurements performed independently on the two subsystems.

More precisely, the operator σ_i acts on subsystem A , while σ_j acts on subsystem B . Their tensor product therefore represents a correlation measurement between the outcomes obtained along two specified measurement directions.

The corresponding expectation values

$$\langle \sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j \rangle$$

quantify the statistical correlations between local measurements performed on the two photons.

These quantities contain direct information about the nonlocal structure of the bipartite quantum state and therefore constitute one of the fundamental signatures of entanglement.

For polarization-entangled states, these observables are particularly important because they are directly connected to experimentally accessible coincidence measurements.

In the computational basis, the Pauli operators correspond to measurements along specific polarization bases:

- σ_z : horizontal/vertical basis,
- σ_x : diagonal/antidiagonal basis,
- σ_y : circular polarization basis.

Consequently, expectation values of the form

$$\langle \sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j \rangle$$

can be interpreted as experimentally measurable polarization correlations between the two photons.

Beyond their direct physical interpretation, these correlators also provide the building blocks for more advanced mathematical descriptions introduced later in this work.

In particular:

- the diagonal correlations $\langle \sigma_i \otimes \sigma_i \rangle$ characterize the persistence of polarization correlations under fiber propagation,
- the complete set of correlators defines the correlation tensor representation of the bipartite state,
- combinations of these expectation values enter directly into Bell inequalities and CHSH nonlocality tests.

This baseline model therefore constitutes the simplest regime in which entanglement is preserved and can be probed exclusively through correlation observables.

It provides a controlled setting for deriving analytical expressions and validating the numerical implementation.

This regime establishes the minimal framework required to connect fiber-induced phase evolution with measurable two-photon correlations, while simultaneously introducing the correlation structures that will later be generalized to mixed states, arbitrary measurement axes, and non-unitary evolution.

2.2.2 Extension to Mixed-State Formalism

At the next level, the model incorporates statistical effects and decoherence.

In this regime, the pure-state description is no longer sufficient and must be replaced by a density-operator formalism.

This extension enables the description of:

- reduced states of individual photons,
- loss of coherence due to unresolved degrees of freedom,

- effective non-unitary dynamics arising from environmental interactions or statistical averaging.

Within this framework, physically relevant quantities such as purity, fidelity, and concurrence can be defined and computed, enabling a quantitative characterization of mixedness, coherence, and entanglement (see Chapter 4).

A central mathematical operation in the density-operator formalism is the partial trace, which allows the description of individual subsystems starting from the global bipartite state.

For a composite system described by the density operator ρ_{AB} , the reduced state of subsystem A is obtained by tracing over subsystem B :

$$\rho_A = \text{Tr}_B(\rho_{AB}) \quad (2.1)$$

Analogously, the reduced state of subsystem B is

$$\rho_B = \text{Tr}_A(\rho_{AB}). \quad (2.2)$$

The reduced density operators contain all information accessible through local measurements performed on the corresponding subsystems.

For maximally entangled Bell states such as $|\Psi^+\rangle$, the reduced states are maximally mixed:

$$\rho_A = \rho_B = \frac{1}{2}I. \quad (2.3)$$

This result constitutes one of the fundamental signatures of bipartite entanglement. Although the global state is pure, each subsystem individually admits a mixed-state description, implying that no local measurement can fully reconstruct the global quantum state.

The information characterizing the entangled system is therefore encoded nonlocally in the correlations between the two subsystems.

This connection between entanglement, reduced-state mixedness, and nonlocal correlations plays a central role throughout the present work, both in the theoretical analysis and in the interpretation of the numerical simulations developed in later chapters.

Expectation values in the density-operator formalism are computed as

$$\langle O \rangle = \text{Tr}(\rho O) \quad (2.4)$$

which generalizes the pure-state expression $\langle \psi | O | \psi \rangle$.

The density-operator formalism therefore provides the natural framework for describing ensemble averaging, decoherence, and effective non-unitary dynamics arising during fiber propagation.

2.3 Computational Architecture and Modeling Roadmap

2.3.1 Simulator Design and Architecture

The simulator is designed as a modular implementation of the theoretical model.

The initial modules include:

- Bell-state generation,
- local unitary propagation,
- correlation evaluation.

More advanced modules introduce:

- quantum channels,
- reduced density operators,
- entanglement measures,
- experimentally relevant observables such as Bell parameters and Stokes-like quantities.

The theoretical structure is directly reflected in the computational architecture, ensuring consistency, traceability, and extensibility.

The implementation distinguishes clearly between reusable computational kernels and higher-level experiment scripts, allowing the simulator to evolve into a structured and reusable research tool.

2.3.2 Implementation Strategy

The simulator is designed as a layered computational framework mirroring the progressive hierarchy of the theoretical model.

At the initial level, the implementation operates on pure two-qubit states represented as complex vectors in $\mathbb{C}^4$.

The corresponding modules include:

- Bell-state generation,
- local unitary evolution,
- expectation-value evaluation,
- correlation computation.

The extension to mixed-state dynamics introduces:

- density-matrix representations,
- partial-trace operations,

- observable evaluation in the density formalism,
- state metrics such as purity, fidelity, and concurrence.

More advanced layers incorporate:

- quantum channels,
- ensemble-based evolution,
- stochastic propagation models,
- experimentally motivated observables.

At the current stage, this structure is reflected in the repository organization:

- **Core:** state vectors, operators, expectation values, and correlation routines;
- **Models:** physical propagation models;
- **Utils:** validation routines and auxiliary tools;
- **Experiments:** scripts implementing complete simulation studies.

This modular architecture preserves analytical traceability while enabling incremental extensions of the physical model without structural modifications of previously validated components.

Chapter 3

Physical and Mathematical Representation

3.1 Quantum System and Hilbert Space Structure

The physical system considered consists of polarization-entangled photon pairs generated by spontaneous parametric down-conversion (SPDC). The two photons propagate along distinct optical paths, denoted A and B , forming a bipartite quantum system.

In this work, the qubit is encoded in the polarization degree of freedom:

$$|H\rangle \equiv |0\rangle, \quad |V\rangle \equiv |1\rangle. \quad (3.1)$$

Accordingly, the computational basis of the bipartite system is

$$\mathcal{B}_{AB} = \{|00\rangle, |01\rangle, |10\rangle, |11\rangle\}. \quad (3.2)$$

In polarization notation, this corresponds to

$$\{|H\rangle_A|H\rangle_B, |H\rangle_A|V\rangle_B, |V\rangle_A|H\rangle_B, |V\rangle_A|V\rangle_B\}.$$

The Hilbert space of the total system is therefore

$$\mathcal{H}_{AB} = \mathcal{H}_A \otimes \mathcal{H}_B \cong \mathbb{C}^2 \otimes \mathbb{C}^2. \quad (3.3)$$

Since each subsystem is two-dimensional, the composite Hilbert space has dimension 4.

As a consequence:

- pure states are represented by complex vectors of length 4,
- operators acting on the full bipartite system are represented by 4×4 matrices.

This construction specifies the concrete realization of the abstract quantum-information framework introduced previously. The fixed computational basis in Eq. (3.2) will be used consistently throughout the theoretical development, the numerical implementation, and the validation experiments.

3.2 Bell-State Initialization

As a reference initial condition, this work considers the Bell state

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} (|H\rangle_A |V\rangle_B + |V\rangle_A |H\rangle_B). \quad (3.4)$$

Using the computational-basis convention introduced in Eq. (3.1), the same state can be written as

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} (|01\rangle + |10\rangle). \quad (3.5)$$

In the ordered computational basis $\mathcal{B}_{AB}$, this state is represented by the column vector

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (3.6)$$

The state $|\Psi^+\rangle$ is maximally entangled and provides the natural input for the baseline version of the simulator. It also serves as the reference state with respect to which later quantities such as fidelity and Bell-inequality violation may be evaluated.

The Bell state provides both a clean analytical benchmark and a physically relevant entangled resource, enabling direct interpretation of fiber-induced effects in terms of coherence, two-photon correlations, and nonlocality.

For completeness, the four Bell states are

$$|\Psi^\pm\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} (|01\rangle \pm |10\rangle), \quad |\Phi^\pm\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} (|00\rangle \pm |11\rangle). \quad (3.7)$$

Among these, $|\Psi^+\rangle$ is used as the default reference input for the propagation models considered in this work.

3.3 Fiber Propagation as Local Unitary Evolution

Each photon propagates through its own optical fiber. At the level of the polarization qubit, the action of each fiber is described by a linear operator acting locally on the corresponding single-photon Hilbert space. In the ideal lossless description, this operator is unitary.

If U_A and U_B denote the single-qubit operators associated with the two fibers, the evolution of an initial two-photon state is

$$|\psi_{\text{out}}\rangle = (U_A \otimes U_B) |\psi_{\text{in}}\rangle. \quad (3.8)$$

This expression follows directly from the tensor-product structure of composite quantum systems and represents the natural bipartite extension of single-qubit evolution. It provides the fundamental starting point for subsequent refinements, including random unitary perturbations, concatenated fiber sections, and effective channel descriptions.

In this framework, the two fibers act independently on the two polarization subsystems, and the total evolution is obtained by tensor composition of the corresponding local transformations. This description remains valid as long as the fibers do not induce any direct interaction between the two photons.

The local-unitary model is therefore the first dynamical layer of the thesis: it captures deterministic polarization transformations while preserving the purity of the global two-photon state.

3.4 Reduced Phase Model

Although a general fiber transformation may involve arbitrary polarization rotations, birefringence, and mode-coupling effects, the first approximation adopted here is simpler and directly motivated by the experimental control scheme.

After partial compensation of polarization drifts, the dominant residual effect is modeled as a relative phase shift between the horizontal and vertical polarization components. In the qubit representation, this corresponds to an effective rotation around the computational Z -axis of the Bloch sphere.

At the single-qubit level, this is represented by the diagonal unitary

$$U(\theta) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & e^{i\theta} \end{pmatrix}, \quad (3.9)$$

defined up to an irrelevant global phase.

If the two fibers induce phases θ_A and θ_B , the total transformation is

$$U_A \otimes U_B = U(\theta_A) \otimes U(\theta_B). \quad (3.10)$$

Applying this operator to the reference Bell state $|\Psi^+\rangle$ yields

$$|\psi(\theta_A, \theta_B)\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} (e^{i\theta_B} |01\rangle + e^{i\theta_A} |10\rangle). \quad (3.11)$$

Factoring out the global phase $e^{i\theta_B}$, which has no observable effect, gives the reduced one-parameter state

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} (|01\rangle + e^{i\theta} |10\rangle), \quad \theta = \theta_A - \theta_B. \quad (3.12)$$

Interpretation. In this reduced description, the physically relevant fiber action is encoded in a single parameter: the relative phase θ , determined by propagation conditions such as birefringence, path length, and environmental fluctuations.

The model isolates the dominant contribution affecting two-photon correlations while preserving a pure-state description. As a consequence, entanglement remains maximal and all observable variations arise from phase-induced modifications of quantum coherence.

Role in the modeling hierarchy. The reduced phase model constitutes the first nontrivial propagation model in the hierarchy. It provides an analytically tractable reference case for validating the simulator and serves as the baseline for subsequent extensions, including general unitary dynamics, ensemble descriptions, and effective non-unitary evolutions.

3.5 Correlation Tensor Representation

Bipartite correlations are described through the Pauli-operator basis

$$\sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j, \quad i, j \in \{x, y, z\},$$

constructed from the single-qubit Pauli matrices $\sigma_x, \sigma_y, \sigma_z$. It is also useful to introduce $\sigma_0 = I$, so that local terms and correlations can be treated within a single notation.

For a two-qubit state ρ_{AB} , the expectation values

$$T_{ij} = \text{Tr}(\rho_{AB} \sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j), \quad i, j \in \{x, y, z\}, \quad (3.13)$$

define the components of the correlation tensor $T \in \mathbb{R}^{3 \times 3}$.

More generally, the state admits the Pauli decomposition

$$\rho_{AB} = \frac{1}{4} \sum_{i,j=0}^3 S_{ij} \sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j, \quad S_{ij} = \text{Tr}(\rho_{AB} \sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j), \quad (3.14)$$

where S_{ij} are generalized Stokes parameters. This representation is commonly used in quantum-state tomography of two-qubit photonic systems, where the density operator is reconstructed from measured expectation values of tensor products of Pauli operators [2].

In this representation:

- S_{i0} and S_{0j} encode the local Bloch vectors of the two subsystems,
- the block S_{ij} , with $i, j \in \{x, y, z\}$, corresponds to the correlation tensor T_{ij} .

The orthogonality relation

$$\text{Tr}[(\sigma_i \otimes \sigma_j)(\sigma_k \otimes \sigma_l)] = 4 \delta_{ik} \delta_{jl} \quad (3.15)$$

ensures that all coefficients in Eq. (3.14) are obtained by direct projection.

Analytical behavior in the reduced phase model. For the phase-evolved Bell state in Eq. (3.12), the correlation tensor is

$$T(\theta) = \begin{pmatrix} \cos \theta & -\sin \theta & 0 \\ \sin \theta & \cos \theta & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (3.16)$$

This structure shows that the parameter θ induces a rotation in the transverse x - y correlation plane, while leaving the longitudinal z -component invariant.

The commonly evaluated diagonal correlations are

$$\begin{aligned}\langle \sigma_x \otimes \sigma_x \rangle &= T_{xx} = \cos \theta, \\ \langle \sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y \rangle &= T_{yy} = \cos \theta, \\ \langle \sigma_z \otimes \sigma_z \rangle &= T_{zz} = -1.\end{aligned}\tag{3.17}$$

Interpretation. The reduced phase model modifies only coherence terms, producing a rigid rotation of correlations in the transverse plane. Population correlations remain unchanged, reflecting the purely unitary nature of the transformation. The correlation tensor is therefore the natural object for distinguishing changes in measurement alignment from actual loss of quantum coherence or entanglement.

3.6 Arbitrary Local Measurement Axes

The correlation tensor introduced previously provides a complete description of all two-qubit correlations accessible through local Pauli measurements. This structure enables the prediction of measurement outcomes along arbitrary directions on the Bloch sphere.

A single-qubit observable associated with a unit vector

$$\mathbf{n} = \begin{pmatrix} n_x \\ n_y \\ n_z \end{pmatrix}, \quad \|\mathbf{n}\| = 1,$$

is defined as

$$\sigma(\mathbf{n}) = \mathbf{n} \cdot \boldsymbol{\sigma} = n_x \sigma_x + n_y \sigma_y + n_z \sigma_z.\tag{3.18}$$

The use of a three-component vector to parametrize measurement directions follows from the structure of single-qubit observables. Any Hermitian operator acting on a two-dimensional Hilbert space can be decomposed as

$$O = \alpha I + \sum_{i \in \{x,y,z\}} n_i \sigma_i,\tag{3.19}$$

where $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ and σ_i are the Pauli matrices.

The identity term does not contribute to correlation measurements in the same way as the traceless Pauli part, since it produces only a uniform contribution. As a consequence, the physically relevant dichotomic observables can be represented by the traceless operator $\sigma(\mathbf{n})$.

The condition $\|\mathbf{n}\| = 1$ ensures that $\sigma(\mathbf{n})$ has eigenvalues ± 1 , corresponding to a valid projective measurement with two possible outcomes.

For a bipartite state ρ_{AB} , choosing local directions $\mathbf{a}$ and $\mathbf{b}$ leads to the correlation function

$$E(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = \text{Tr} [\rho_{AB} (\sigma(\mathbf{a}) \otimes \sigma(\mathbf{b}))].\tag{3.20}$$

Expanding in the Pauli basis gives

$$E(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = \sum_{i,j \in \{x,y,z\}} a_i T_{ij} b_j, \quad (3.21)$$

or, in compact matrix notation,

$$E(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = \mathbf{a}^\top T \mathbf{b}. \quad (3.22)$$

This expression shows that the correlation tensor completely determines all possible measurement outcomes for local Pauli observables.

Analytical behavior for the reduced phase model. Using Eq. (3.16), the correlation function for the phase-evolved Bell state becomes

$$E(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}; \theta) = \mathbf{a}^\top T(\theta) \mathbf{b}. \quad (3.23)$$

For measurement directions restricted to the equatorial plane,

$$\mathbf{a} = \begin{pmatrix} \cos \alpha \\ \sin \alpha \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{b} = \begin{pmatrix} \cos \beta \\ \sin \beta \\ 0 \end{pmatrix},$$

this reduces to

$$E(\alpha, \beta; \theta) = \cos(\theta + \beta - \alpha). \quad (3.24)$$

Interpretation. The phase θ acts as an effective shift of the relative measurement angle. Consequently, phase evolution induced by the fiber is operationally equivalent to a rotation of measurement settings in the transverse plane.

Operational implications. In an experimental setting, arbitrary measurement axes are realized through local unitary transformations, such as wave plates, followed by a fixed computational-basis measurement.

This correspondence allows the theoretical model to reproduce realistic measurement procedures by combining local unitary rotations, standard projective measurements, and correlation evaluation through the tensor structure.

3.7 Bell Inequalities and CHSH Nonlocality

The correlation structure introduced in the previous sections provides a complete operational description of measurement outcomes for arbitrary local observables. This framework makes it possible to formulate quantitative criteria that distinguish correlations compatible with classical physics from those that are intrinsically quantum.

The central question addressed by Bell inequalities is the following: *can the observed correlations between spatially separated subsystems be explained by a classical model based on shared hidden information?*

In a classical description based on local hidden variables, it is assumed that the outcomes of measurements performed on subsystems A and B are determined by a shared underlying variable λ , drawn from a probability distribution $p(\lambda)$. This variable represents all pre-existing information that could influence the measurement results.

For each realization of λ , the outcome of a measurement on subsystem A along direction $\mathbf{a}$ is described by a deterministic response function

$$A(\mathbf{a}, \lambda) \in \{-1, +1\},$$

and similarly for subsystem B ,

$$B(\mathbf{b}, \lambda) \in \{-1, +1\}.$$

The key physical assumption is locality: the outcome at each subsystem depends only on the local measurement setting and on the shared variable λ , but not on the measurement choice at the distant subsystem.

Since λ is not directly accessible, observable quantities correspond to averages over its distribution. The classical correlation function is therefore [3]

$$E(\mathbf{a}, \mathbf{b}) = \int d\lambda p(\lambda) A(\mathbf{a}, \lambda) B(\mathbf{b}, \lambda), \quad p(\lambda) \geq 0, \quad \int d\lambda p(\lambda) = 1. \quad (3.25)$$

This expression represents the most general form of bipartite correlations compatible with a local hidden-variable model.

The most widely used form of a Bell inequality is the Clauser–Horne–Shimony–Holt (CHSH) inequality. It involves four measurement settings:

$$\mathbf{a}_1, \mathbf{a}_2 \quad \text{for subsystem } A, \quad \mathbf{b}_1, \mathbf{b}_2 \quad \text{for subsystem } B.$$

The CHSH parameter is defined as

$$S = E(\mathbf{a}_1, \mathbf{b}_1) + E(\mathbf{a}_1, \mathbf{b}_2) + E(\mathbf{a}_2, \mathbf{b}_1) - E(\mathbf{a}_2, \mathbf{b}_2). \quad (3.26)$$

Classical bound. Under the assumptions of locality and realism, the CHSH parameter satisfies

$$|S| \leq 2. \quad (3.27)$$

This bound reflects a fundamental limitation of classical correlations: although each term in S can individually reach its maximal value, their combination is constrained by the requirement that all outcomes originate from the same underlying variable λ .

Quantum prediction. In quantum mechanics, correlations arise from the structure of the joint state rather than from pre-existing local variables. The correlation function is given by Eq. (3.20).

Due to the non-commuting nature of quantum observables and the presence of entanglement, the CHSH parameter can exceed the classical bound. The maximal value allowed by quantum mechanics is

$$|S| \leq 2\sqrt{2}, \quad (3.28)$$

known as the Tsirelson bound.

This violation does not imply faster-than-light communication. Rather, it implies that the correlations cannot be reproduced by any model based on local hidden variables.

Tensor formulation. Using the correlation tensor representation, the CHSH parameter can be expressed as

$$S = \mathbf{a}_1^\top T \mathbf{b}_1 + \mathbf{a}_1^\top T \mathbf{b}_2 + \mathbf{a}_2^\top T \mathbf{b}_1 - \mathbf{a}_2^\top T \mathbf{b}_2. \quad (3.29)$$

This formulation makes explicit that the CHSH inequality depends only on the correlation tensor and on the choice of measurement directions. In particular, it shows that the observed value of S is sensitive not only to the state, but also to the alignment between the measurement axes and the principal directions of the tensor.

A particularly important result is that the maximal violation achievable for a given state can be computed directly from the tensor. Defining

$$U = T^\top T, \quad (3.30)$$

and denoting by λ_1 and λ_2 the two largest eigenvalues of U , the maximal CHSH value is

$$S_{\max} = 2\sqrt{\lambda_1 + \lambda_2}. \quad (3.31)$$

Interpretation. A violation of the CHSH inequality, i.e. $|S| > 2$, indicates the presence of correlations that cannot be explained by any local hidden-variable model. Such correlations are referred to as nonlocal.

Nonlocality should be understood as a property of correlations rather than of individual subsystems: each subsystem alone may appear completely random, while the joint statistics reveal strong structured correlations.

It is important to distinguish nonlocality from entanglement. While all maximally entangled pure states achieve maximal quantum violation for suitable measurement axes, not all entangled states violate the CHSH inequality. In particular, sufficiently mixed states may remain within the classical bound despite being entangled.

Operational implications. The CHSH parameter provides a direct bridge between the theoretical description of correlations and experimentally accessible quantities. In practice, it is evaluated by performing measurements along four selected pairs of local axes and combining the resulting correlation values.

The correlation tensor entering this construction can be experimentally reconstructed from a set of bipartite expectation values in the Pauli basis, in a procedure closely related to quantum state tomography. In this sense, the evaluation of CHSH inequalities can be viewed as a specific post-processing of tomographically accessible data.

Two complementary perspectives are particularly relevant:

- evaluation of S for fixed measurement settings, corresponding to a specific experimental configuration,
- computation of $S_{\max}$, which quantifies the maximal nonlocality extractable from the state.

This separation will play a central role in the analysis of fiber-induced effects, where transformations may alter the observed correlations without necessarily reducing the underlying nonlocality.

3.8 From Pure-State Description to Ensemble Representation

The reduced phase model describes a deterministic unitary evolution of a pure entangled state, parametrized by a single phase θ .

In realistic fiber propagation, however, this phase is not necessarily constant. It may fluctuate due to environmental effects such as birefringence variations, mechanical perturbations, and thermal instability. As a consequence, different photon pairs may experience different phase shifts.

When these fluctuations occur on timescales shorter than the measurement resolution, individual realizations cannot be resolved experimentally. The observed system is therefore not described by a single pure state, but by an ensemble of states corresponding to different phase realizations.

In this regime, the appropriate description is given by a density operator

$$\rho = \sum_k p_k |\psi_k\rangle\langle\psi_k|, \quad (3.32)$$

which encodes both classical statistical uncertainty and loss of phase coherence.

In the present context, the effective state is obtained by averaging over the phase distribution:

$$\rho = \mathbb{E}_\theta [|\psi(\theta)\rangle\langle\psi(\theta)|]. \quad (3.33)$$

This averaging procedure suppresses off-diagonal coherences in the computational basis and leads to a degradation of correlation observables T_{ij} , even though each underlying realization remains a pure state evolving unitarily.

The density operator satisfies

$$\rho^\dagger = \rho, \quad \rho \geq 0, \quad \text{Tr}(\rho) = 1, \quad (3.34)$$

ensuring a consistent probabilistic interpretation.

Expectation values are computed as

$$\langle O \rangle = \text{Tr}(\rho O), \quad (3.35)$$

which generalizes the pure-state expression.

Interpretation. The transition from $|\psi(\theta)\rangle$ to ρ reflects a loss of phase information at the level of measurement, rather than a breakdown of the underlying unitary dynamics. The mixed-state description therefore arises from averaging over unresolved degrees of freedom, not necessarily from intrinsic decoherence at the level of individual realizations.

This formalism provides the foundation for modeling phase noise and more general quantum channels, and will be used in Chapter 5 to interpret the behavior of correlation observables under stochastic perturbations.

3.9 Quantum Channels and Effective Depolarization

The ensemble description introduced in the previous section accounts for statistical fluctuations of the relative phase parameter by averaging over a family of pure states. In that setting, each individual realization is still described by a unitary transformation, and the resulting mixed state arises from classical uncertainty over these realizations.

In realistic fiber propagation, however, loss of coherence may also originate from coupling between polarization and additional physical degrees of freedom that are not directly observed, such as frequency or temporal modes. In such cases, the effective evolution of the polarization state must be formulated as a transformation acting directly on the density operator.

This motivates the introduction of the concept of a quantum channel, which provides the appropriate mathematical framework for describing effective non-unitary evolution.

Interpretation. The transition from ensemble averaging to channel-based evolution reflects a change in the physical origin of mixedness. In the ensemble description, mixedness arises from classical uncertainty over unitary realizations, whereas in the channel description it originates from tracing out unobserved degrees of freedom of a larger system. The resulting dynamics is non-unitary at the level of the reduced polarization state.

Quantum channels as effective evolution maps. A quantum channel is defined as a linear map

$$\mathcal{E} : \rho \mapsto \mathcal{E}(\rho), \quad (3.36)$$

acting on density operators, such that it is completely positive and trace preserving. A general representation of such maps is given by the operator-sum form

$$\mathcal{E}(\rho) = \sum_{\mu} K_{\mu} \rho K_{\mu}^{\dagger}, \quad \sum_{\mu} K_{\mu}^{\dagger} K_{\mu} = I, \quad (3.37)$$

where the operators K_{μ} encode the effective action of the physical process.

In the present context, the channel formalism extends the unitary model of fiber propagation. While ideal fibers are described by operators of the form $U_A \otimes U_B$, realistic propagation may involve coupling to unobserved variables. The polarization state is then obtained by tracing out these auxiliary degrees of freedom, resulting in a non-unitary evolution.

Physical origin of effective depolarization. One of the main mechanisms responsible for non-unitary behavior in optical fibers is the frequency dependence of the polarization transformation. For finite-duration wave packets, different spectral components experience different polarization-dependent phase shifts.

As a consequence, polarization components may acquire different group delays and become partially or completely separated in time. When this temporal separation exceeds the coherence time of the detection process, interference is lost and the system is no longer described by a coherent superposition in the polarization degree of freedom alone.

From the point of view of the polarization subsystem, this manifests as a loss of coherence and leads to an effective depolarization of the state.

Depolarizing channel model. As a first effective model of this behavior, this work introduces the depolarizing channel. In the bipartite two-qubit setting, its action on a density operator ρ is

$$\mathcal{E}_p(\rho) = (1 - p)\rho + \frac{p}{4}I_4, \quad p \in [0, 1], \quad (3.38)$$

where I_4 is the identity on the four-dimensional Hilbert space and p quantifies the strength of depolarization.

This model interpolates between two limiting regimes:

- $p = 0$: the state is preserved,
- $p = 1$: the state becomes maximally mixed.

The depolarizing channel is isotropic, meaning that all polarization directions are affected uniformly.

Application to Bell states. For the Bell state introduced in Eq. (3.5), with density operator

$$\rho_0 = |\Psi^+\rangle\langle\Psi^+|,$$

the channel produces

$$\rho(p) = (1 - p)\rho_0 + \frac{p}{4}I_4. \quad (3.39)$$

This family provides a simple yet nontrivial model for entanglement degradation under fiber propagation, interpolating between a maximally entangled pure state and a fully mixed state.

Role in the modeling hierarchy. The introduction of quantum channels completes the dynamical modeling structure of the present chapter. The resulting states are, in general, mixed and must be analyzed using the density-operator formalism. In the following chapter, quantitative measures such as purity, fidelity, and concurrence will be used to characterize the effects of depolarization on bipartite states, providing a detailed assessment of coherence loss and entanglement degradation.

3.10 Computational Representation and Implementation Roadmap

The mathematical structures introduced in this chapter define the computational backbone of the simulator. The purpose of the implementation is not to introduce a separate numerical model, but to realize the theoretical framework in a modular and reproducible form.

At MATLAB level, bipartite pure states are represented as 4×1 complex vectors and operators acting on the full two-qubit system are represented as 4×4 complex matrices.

The computational basis ordering is fixed as

$$\{|00\rangle, |01\rangle, |10\rangle, |11\rangle\},$$

and is used consistently across all modules. This convention is critical: tensor products, operator constructions, density matrices, and correlation observables are all defined with respect to this ordering. Any mismatch would lead to incorrect physical results, even if the underlying mathematical expressions are formally correct.

State preparation is implemented through dedicated routines returning normalized Bell states in the fixed computational basis. The state $|\Psi^+\rangle$ is used as the default reference input for the baseline model, providing a controlled benchmark for validating correlation observables, fidelity computations, and entanglement measures under fiber propagation.

The fundamental evolution primitive is the tensor-product action

$$\psi_{\text{out}} = (U_A \otimes U_B)\psi_{\text{in}}.$$

This operation is isolated as a core routine because all unitary propagation models reduce to this structure at the bipartite level. Local single-qubit operators are combined into the global operator $U_A \otimes U_B$, which is then applied to the input state vector.

For the reduced phase model, the simulator is structured around the one-parameter family $|\psi(\theta)\rangle$. Both parametrizations (θ_A, θ_B) and $\theta = \theta_A - \theta_B$ are useful: the two-phase representation preserves the physical interpretation of independent fiber arms, while the reduced one-parameter form enables efficient analytical validation and parameter sweeps.

The first validated numerical study consists of a parameter sweep in θ , with numerical evaluation of state vectors, expectation values, and correlation observables. This defines the minimal complete simulation pipeline upon which all subsequent developments are built.

For correlation analysis, the simulator evaluates tensor components through the density-operator trace rule

$$\langle O \rangle = \text{Tr}(\rho O),$$

using a modular pipeline including:

- Pauli operator generation,
- tensor-product construction,
- expectation-value evaluation,
- structured storage of T_{ij} .

The same computational framework is reused for arbitrary-axis measurements by constructing operators of the form $\sigma(\mathbf{a}) \otimes \sigma(\mathbf{b})$, and for CHSH analysis by combining the resulting correlation functions into fixed-axis or optimized Bell parameters.

This organization ensures that changes in the physical model, such as stochastic phase evolution, random unitary propagation, or effective quantum channels, can be introduced by modifying well-isolated components while preserving the validated core routines.

Chapter 4

Quantitative Characterization of Two-Qubit States

4.1 Reduced Density Operators

In bipartite quantum systems, the state of an individual subsystem is described by a density operator obtained through a partial trace over the complementary subsystem. This formalism captures the effect of correlations present at the global level.

Let the composite system be defined on the Hilbert space

$$\mathcal{H}_{AB} = \mathcal{H}_A \otimes \mathcal{H}_B,$$

with $\mathcal{H}_A \cong \mathbb{C}^2$ and $\mathcal{H}_B \cong \mathbb{C}^2$. A generic global state is described by a density operator

$$\rho_{AB} \in \mathbb{C}^{4 \times 4}.$$

The reduced density operators are defined as

$$\rho_A = \text{Tr}_B(\rho_{AB}), \quad \rho_B = \text{Tr}_A(\rho_{AB}). \quad (4.1)$$

These operators reproduce all expectation values of observables acting locally on the subsystem. For any observable O_A acting on subsystem A ,

$$\langle O_A \rangle = \text{Tr}[\rho_{AB} (O_A \otimes I_B)] = \text{Tr}(\rho_A O_A). \quad (4.2)$$

An explicit construction of the partial trace is given by

$$\rho_A = \sum_{j=0}^1 (I_A \otimes \langle j|) \rho_{AB} (I_A \otimes |j\rangle), \quad (4.3)$$

which shows that the degrees of freedom associated with the unobserved subsystem are eliminated.

For maximally entangled Bell states, such as

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + |10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}},$$

one obtains

$$\rho_A = \rho_B = \frac{I}{2}, \quad (4.4)$$

indicating that each subsystem is locally maximally mixed despite the global state being pure.

The same result holds for the phase-evolved state introduced in Chapter 3,

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + e^{i\theta}|10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}},$$

since the relative phase modifies global coherence but leaves local states unchanged:

$$\rho_A(\theta) = \rho_B(\theta) = \frac{I}{2}. \quad (4.5)$$

By linearity of the partial trace, this property is preserved under convex combinations. For the ensemble state

$$\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=1}^N |\psi(\theta_k)\rangle \langle \psi(\theta_k)|,$$

one finds

$$\rho_A^{(\text{ens})} = \rho_B^{(\text{ens})} = \frac{I}{2}. \quad (4.6)$$

This leads to a key conceptual point: the same reduced density operator

$$\rho_A = \frac{I}{2}$$

can arise from physically distinct global states.

On one hand, it may describe a classical ensemble

$$\rho^{(\text{class})} = \frac{1}{2}|0\rangle\langle 0| + \frac{1}{2}|1\rangle\langle 1|,$$

where the system is in a definite state but the observer lacks knowledge.

On the other hand, it may result from entanglement:

$$\rho_A^{(\text{ent})} = \text{Tr}_B (|\Psi^+\rangle \langle \Psi^+|) = \frac{I}{2}.$$

Since both cases yield identical expectation values for all local observables,

$$\text{Tr}(\rho^{(\text{class})} O_A) = \text{Tr}(\rho_A^{(\text{ent})} O_A),$$

they are indistinguishable by local measurements alone.

The distinction emerges only at the global level, where coherence and correlations must be analyzed through quantities such as purity and bipartite correlation functions.

Finally, the reduced density operator directly determines measurable local quantities. For Pauli observables,

$$\begin{aligned}
\langle \sigma_x \rangle &= \text{Tr}(\rho_A \sigma_x), \\
\langle \sigma_y \rangle &= \text{Tr}(\rho_A \sigma_y), \\
\langle \sigma_z \rangle &= \text{Tr}(\rho_A \sigma_z).
\end{aligned} \tag{4.7}$$

For $\rho_A = I/2$, all expectation values vanish, indicating complete local depolarization.

4.2 Purity and Mixedness

Having introduced reduced density operators in Section 4.1, we now require a quantitative criterion to distinguish whether a quantum state is pure or mixed.

A state described by a density operator ρ is pure if it can be written as

$$\rho = |\psi\rangle\langle\psi|, \tag{4.8}$$

for some normalized vector $|\psi\rangle$. Otherwise, it is mixed, meaning that it admits an ensemble representation

$$\rho = \sum_k p_k |\psi_k\rangle\langle\psi_k|, \quad p_k \geq 0, \quad \sum_k p_k = 1. \tag{4.9}$$

A convenient quantitative measure of mixedness is the purity, defined as

$$\gamma(\rho) = \text{Tr}(\rho^2). \tag{4.10}$$

This quantity satisfies

$$\gamma(\rho) = 1 \iff \rho \text{ is pure}, \quad \gamma(\rho) < 1 \iff \rho \text{ is mixed}. \tag{4.11}$$

If $\rho = \sum_i \lambda_i |i\rangle\langle i|$ is its spectral decomposition, then

$$\gamma(\rho) = \sum_i \lambda_i^2, \tag{4.12}$$

which shows that purity measures the concentration of the eigenvalue distribution. More generally, for a Hilbert space of dimension d ,

$$\frac{1}{d} \leq \gamma(\rho) \leq 1, \tag{4.13}$$

with the lower bound attained by the maximally mixed state $\rho = I/d$.

For single-qubit systems, purity admits a simple geometric interpretation. Any density operator can be written as

$$\rho = \frac{1}{2} (I + \vec{r} \cdot \vec{\sigma}), \tag{4.14}$$

where $\vec{r} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ is the Bloch vector. One then finds

$$\gamma(\rho) = \frac{1 + \|\vec{r}\|^2}{2}. \tag{4.15}$$

Thus,

$$\|\vec{r}\| = 1 \Rightarrow \rho \text{ is pure}, \quad \|\vec{r}\| = 0 \Rightarrow \rho = \frac{I}{2}.$$

Mixedness does not uniquely determine the physical origin of a state. As discussed in Section 4.1, it may arise either from classical statistical uncertainty or from entanglement with an unobserved subsystem.

A paradigmatic example is provided by the Bell state

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + |10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}},$$

whose global density operator

$$\rho_{AB} = |\Psi^+\rangle\langle\Psi^+|$$

is pure,

$$\gamma(\rho_{AB}) = 1,$$

while the reduced states satisfy

$$\rho_A = \rho_B = \frac{I}{2}, \quad \gamma(\rho_A) = \gamma(\rho_B) = \frac{1}{2}.$$

This illustrates that a globally pure entangled state may generate locally maximally mixed subsystems.

In the present model, the phase-evolved state introduced in Chapter 3,

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + e^{i\theta}|10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}},$$

remains pure for all values of θ ,

$$\gamma(\rho(\theta)) = 1, \tag{4.16}$$

while the reduced states remain maximally mixed,

$$\rho_A(\theta) = \rho_B(\theta) = \frac{I}{2}.$$

Thus, relative phase shifts modify correlation observables without affecting either global purity or local mixedness.

When extending the model to include stochastic or environmental effects, the situation changes. For the random-phase ensemble, the global state depends on the coherence parameter

$$\mu = \langle e^{i\theta} \rangle, \tag{4.17}$$

and its purity is

$$\gamma\left(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})}\right) = \frac{1 + |\mu|^2}{2}. \tag{4.18}$$

Equivalently,

$$\gamma\left(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})}\right) = \frac{1 + \langle \cos \theta \rangle^2 + \langle \sin \theta \rangle^2}{2}. \quad (4.19)$$

This shows that purity directly quantifies the loss of phase coherence in the ensemble: the state is pure for $|\mu| = 1$ and becomes mixed as $|\mu|$ decreases.

Purity therefore provides a fundamental diagnostic tool for assessing coherence loss in the simulator, complementing correlation observables and preparing the ground for fidelity and entanglement measures.

4.3 Fidelity with Respect to Bell States

Having introduced reduced density operators and purity as measures of local information and mixedness, we now require a quantitative tool to evaluate how close a given quantum state is to a reference target state. This role is fulfilled by the notion of fidelity.

In general, the fidelity between two quantum states described by density operators ρ and σ is defined as

$$F(\rho, \sigma) = \left(\text{Tr} \sqrt{\sqrt{\rho} \sigma \sqrt{\rho}} \right)^2, \quad (4.20)$$

and satisfies

$$0 \leq F(\rho, \sigma) \leq 1,$$

with equality to 1 if and only if $\rho = \sigma$.

In the present context, the reference state is pure, $\sigma = |\phi\rangle\langle\phi|$, and the expression simplifies to

$$F(\rho, |\phi\rangle) = \langle\phi|\rho|\phi\rangle, \quad (4.21)$$

which admits a direct interpretation as the probability of projecting onto $|\phi\rangle$.

We focus on the Bell state introduced in Chapter 3,

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + |10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}},$$

and define

$$F_{\Psi^+}(\rho) = \langle\Psi^+|\rho|\Psi^+\rangle. \quad (4.22)$$

For the phase-evolved state,

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + e^{i\theta}|10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad \rho(\theta) = |\psi(\theta)\rangle\langle\psi(\theta)|,$$

one obtains

$$F_{\Psi^+}(\rho(\theta)) = |\langle\Psi^+|\psi(\theta)\rangle|^2,$$

with

$$\langle \Psi^+ | \psi(\theta) \rangle = \frac{1}{2} (1 + e^{i\theta}),$$

leading to

$$F_{\Psi^+}(\rho(\theta)) = \frac{1 + \cos \theta}{2}. \quad (4.23)$$

Thus, the relative phase modifies the overlap with the reference Bell state, even though the global state remains pure. In particular,

$$F_{\Psi^+} = 1 \quad \text{for } \theta = 0, \quad F_{\Psi^+} = 0 \quad \text{for } \theta = \pi.$$

For ensemble states,

$$\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=1}^N |\psi(\theta_k)\rangle \langle \psi(\theta_k)|,$$

linearity yields

$$F_{\Psi^+}(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})}) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=1}^N F_{\Psi^+}(\rho(\theta_k)).$$

Introducing the coherence parameter $\mu = \langle e^{i\theta} \rangle$, one finds

$$F_{\Psi^+} = \frac{1}{2} (1 + \text{Re}(\mu)) = \frac{1}{2} (1 + \langle \cos \theta \rangle). \quad (4.24)$$

In particular, for a uniform distribution over $[0, 2\pi]$,

$$F_{\Psi^+} = \frac{1}{2}.$$

Fidelity therefore provides a quantitative measure of how closely a given state approximates the target Bell state. Unlike purity, which characterizes mixedness, fidelity is sensitive to coherent deformations of the state and complements correlation observables in the analysis of the system.

4.4 Concurrence as an Entanglement Measure

Reduced density operators, purity, and fidelity provide complementary information about a bipartite quantum state, but none of them directly quantifies entanglement. In particular, fidelity with respect to a Bell state may vary under local unitary evolution even when the amount of entanglement remains unchanged. A genuine entanglement measure is therefore required.

For two-qubit systems, a standard measure is the concurrence, defined such that

$$0 \leq C \leq 1,$$

where $C = 0$ corresponds to separable states and $C = 1$ to maximally entangled states.

For a pure state

$$|\psi\rangle = a|00\rangle + b|01\rangle + c|10\rangle + d|11\rangle,$$

the concurrence is

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = 2|ad - bc|. \quad (4.25)$$

This expression vanishes for separable states and reaches unity for Bell states. For example,

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + |10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}} \Rightarrow C = 1.$$

For the phase-evolved state introduced in Chapter 3,

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + e^{i\theta}|10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}},$$

one finds

$$C(|\psi(\theta)\rangle) = 1, \quad (4.26)$$

showing that the relative phase modifies fidelity but leaves entanglement unchanged. This reflects the invariance of bipartite entanglement under local unitary transformations.

For pure bipartite states, concurrence is directly related to the reduced density operators:

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = 2\sqrt{\det(\rho_A)} = \sqrt{2(1 - \gamma(\rho_A))}, \quad \rho_A = \text{Tr}_B(|\psi\rangle\langle\psi|). \quad (4.27)$$

Thus, entanglement is encoded in the mixedness of the reduced states: separable states yield pure reductions, while maximally entangled states yield maximally mixed reductions.

For mixed states $\rho \in \mathbb{C}^{4 \times 4}$, concurrence is defined via the spin-flipped matrix

$$\tilde{\rho} = (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y) \rho^* (\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y). \quad (4.28)$$

Let $\lambda_1 \geq \lambda_2 \geq \lambda_3 \geq \lambda_4 \geq 0$ be the square roots of the eigenvalues of $\rho\tilde{\rho}$. Then

$$C(\rho) = \max(0, \lambda_1 - \lambda_2 - \lambda_3 - \lambda_4). \quad (4.29)$$

This expression applies to arbitrary two-qubit states and reduces to the pure-state formula in the appropriate limit.

In the present model, mixed states arise from ensemble averaging over random phases,

$$\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})} = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{k=1}^N |\psi(\theta_k)\rangle\langle\psi(\theta_k)|,$$

which depend on the coherence parameter

$$\mu = \langle e^{i\theta} \rangle.$$

In the computational basis, the ensemble state reads

$$\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})} = \frac{1}{2}|01\rangle\langle 01| + \frac{1}{2}|10\rangle\langle 10| + \frac{\mu}{2}|10\rangle\langle 01| + \frac{\mu^*}{2}|01\rangle\langle 10|. \quad (4.30)$$

For this family of states, the concurrence is

$$C\left(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})}\right) = |\mu|. \quad (4.31)$$

This result shows that the same coherence parameter controlling purity and fidelity also governs entanglement degradation:

$$\gamma\left(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{ens})}\right) = \frac{1 + |\mu|^2}{2}, \quad F_{\Psi^+} = \frac{1 + \text{Re}(\mu)}{2}.$$

Thus, the reduced phase model provides a unified description in which coherence, mixedness, and entanglement are all controlled by a single parameter.

4.5 Interplay Between Purity, Fidelity, and Concurrence

The previous sections introduced three complementary descriptors of bipartite quantum states: purity, fidelity, and concurrence. While purity quantifies mixedness, fidelity measures proximity to a chosen reference state, and concurrence provides a direct measure of bipartite entanglement.

In general, these quantities are independent. However, within the random-phase ensemble model considered in this work, they are all governed by a single complex parameter, the ensemble coherence

$$\mu = \langle e^{i\theta} \rangle = \langle \cos \theta \rangle + i \langle \sin \theta \rangle. \quad (4.32)$$

For this family of states, the three quantities take the form

$$\gamma(\rho) = \frac{1 + |\mu|^2}{2}, \quad C(\rho) = |\mu|, \quad F_{\Psi^+} = \frac{1 + \text{Re}(\mu)}{2}. \quad (4.33)$$

These relations highlight the distinct roles of the three quantities. Purity depends on the squared magnitude $|\mu|^2$ and therefore quantifies the overall coherence retained after ensemble averaging. Concurrence depends linearly on $|\mu|$ and directly measures entanglement. By contrast, fidelity depends only on the real part $\text{Re}(\mu)$, reflecting overlap with a specific reference state.

This distinction has important consequences. In the deterministic phase model, the parameter μ lies on the unit circle, so that $|\mu| = 1$ for all values of θ . As a result, concurrence remains maximal, while fidelity varies with the phase. Thus, fidelity changes do not necessarily indicate variations in entanglement.

In the random-phase ensemble, averaging reduces the magnitude $|\mu|$. This leads to a simultaneous decrease of purity and concurrence, reflecting a genuine loss of coherence and entanglement. In this regime, fidelity reduction is no longer purely geometric but corresponds to physical degradation of the state.

A useful geometric interpretation is obtained by representing μ in the complex plane. The concurrence is proportional to its distance from the origin, while fidelity corresponds to its projection onto the real axis. Deterministic phase evolution moves μ along the unit circle, preserving its magnitude, whereas ensemble averaging contracts it toward the origin.

The limiting cases illustrate these behaviors:

$$|\mu| = 1 \Rightarrow \gamma(\rho) = 1, \quad C = 1, \quad |\mu| = 0 \Rightarrow \gamma(\rho) = \frac{1}{2}, \quad C = 0. \quad (4.34)$$

Intermediate values $0 < |\mu| < 1$ correspond to partially coherent states with reduced but nonzero entanglement.

These relations are specific to the structure of the random-phase ensemble. In general quantum states, purity, fidelity, and concurrence are not determined by a single parameter.

In summary, the coherence parameter μ provides a unifying description of the states considered in this work: its magnitude controls both mixedness and entanglement, while its real part determines the overlap with the reference Bell state. This interplay highlights the necessity of combining multiple quantitative descriptors to fully characterize bipartite quantum systems.

4.6 Computational Evaluation of State Metrics

The quantities introduced in this chapter define the main diagnostic layer of the simulator. Their role is to translate the abstract density-operator description into numerical indicators of local mixedness, global coherence, Bell-state overlap, and entanglement.

At the computational level, reduced density operators are obtained by applying partial-trace routines to the global density matrix ρ_{AB} . For a two-qubit state represented in the fixed computational basis, this operation returns 2×2 matrices ρ_A and ρ_B , which can then be used to compute local expectation values and local purities.

Purity is evaluated through the trace formula

$$\gamma(\rho) = \text{Tr}(\rho^2),$$

and is applied both to the global state and to the reduced states. This provides a direct numerical check of whether a simulated state remains pure, becomes mixed through ensemble averaging, or approaches the maximally mixed limit.

Fidelity with respect to $|\Psi^+\rangle$ is computed using the pure-reference formula

$$F_{\Psi^+}(\rho) = \langle \Psi^+ | \rho | \Psi^+ \rangle,$$

which avoids unnecessary matrix square-root operations and is therefore the natural implementation for the present simulator.

Concurrence is computed using the two-qubit spin-flip construction. For pure states, the simplified formula $C(|\psi\rangle) = 2|ad - bc|$ provides a useful analytical validation. For density matrices, the general mixed-state formula based on the eigenvalues of $\rho\tilde{\rho}$ is used.

The same metric routines are applied across deterministic phase evolution, random-phase ensembles, and depolarizing-channel simulations. This ensures that all numerical experiments are characterized using a common diagnostic framework.

The computational objective is therefore not only to evaluate individual metrics, but also to compare them consistently. In particular:

- purity diagnoses mixedness and coherence loss,
- fidelity measures proximity to the chosen Bell reference state,
- concurrence quantifies bipartite entanglement.

This separation is essential for the interpretation of fiber-induced effects. A decrease in fidelity may simply indicate a coherent phase rotation, while a decrease in concurrence indicates genuine entanglement degradation. Purity distinguishes whether the state remains pure or has become mixed due to unresolved statistical or environmental degrees of freedom.

Appendix A

Explicit Derivation of Reduced Density Operators and Comparison of Global States

This appendix provides an explicit derivation of the reduced density operators associated with the phase-evolved Bell state introduced in Chapter 3. It also illustrates an important conceptual point: identical local reduced states may correspond to physically different global states.

The discussion clarifies why local measurements alone are insufficient to characterize bipartite quantum systems and motivates the introduction of global quantities such as purity, correlation functions, and entanglement measures.

A.1 Phase-Evolved Bell State

We consider the two-qubit state

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + e^{i\theta}|10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad (\text{A.1})$$

written in the computational basis

$$\{|00\rangle, |01\rangle, |10\rangle, |11\rangle\}.$$

Its vector representation is

$$|\psi(\theta)\rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}} \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ e^{i\theta} \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.2})$$

The corresponding density operator is

$$\rho_{AB}(\theta) = |\psi(\theta)\rangle\langle\psi(\theta)|. \quad (\text{A.3})$$

Expanding explicitly gives

$$\rho_{AB}(\theta) = \frac{1}{2} \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & e^{-i\theta} & 0 \\ 0 & e^{i\theta} & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (\text{A.4})$$

A.2 Explicit Evaluation of the Partial Trace

The reduced density operator of subsystem A is obtained through the partial trace over subsystem B :

$$\rho_A(\theta) = \text{Tr}_B (\rho_{AB}(\theta)). \quad (\text{A.5})$$

Using the computational basis of subsystem B ,

$$\{|0\rangle, |1\rangle\},$$

the partial trace can be written explicitly as

$$\rho_A(\theta) = \sum_{b=0}^1 (I_A \otimes \langle b|) \rho_{AB}(\theta) (I_A \otimes |b\rangle). \quad (\text{A.6})$$

We now evaluate the individual contributions.

The diagonal terms give

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Tr}_B (|01\rangle\langle 01|) &= |0\rangle\langle 0|, \\ \text{Tr}_B (|10\rangle\langle 10|) &= |1\rangle\langle 1|. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{A.7})$$

The off-diagonal terms vanish:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Tr}_B (|01\rangle\langle 10|) &= 0, \\ \text{Tr}_B (|10\rangle\langle 01|) &= 0, \end{aligned} \quad (\text{A.8})$$

due to the orthogonality relation

$$\langle 0|1\rangle = 0.$$

Summing all contributions yields

$$\rho_A(\theta) = \frac{1}{2}|0\rangle\langle 0| + \frac{1}{2}|1\rangle\langle 1| = \frac{I}{2}. \quad (\text{A.9})$$

By symmetry,

$$\rho_B(\theta) = \frac{I}{2}. \quad (\text{A.10})$$

Thus, although the global state depends explicitly on the phase θ , the reduced states do not. The phase appears only in the off-diagonal coherence terms of the global density operator, which are eliminated by the partial trace.

In particular, for $\theta = 0$,

$$|\Psi^+\rangle = \frac{|01\rangle + |10\rangle}{\sqrt{2}}, \quad (\text{A.11})$$

one obtains the same reduced states,

$$\rho_A = \rho_B = \frac{I}{2}. \quad (\text{A.12})$$

A.3 Local Equivalence and Global Distinction

The previous result illustrates an important conceptual property of bipartite quantum systems.

Consider the classical mixture

$$\rho^{(\text{class})} = \frac{1}{2}|0\rangle\langle 0| + \frac{1}{2}|1\rangle\langle 1| = \frac{I}{2}. \quad (\text{A.13})$$

At the local level,

$$\rho_A^{(\text{ent})} = \rho^{(\text{class})}, \quad (\text{A.14})$$

and therefore, for any observable O_A ,

$$\text{Tr}(\rho^{(\text{class})} O_A) = \text{Tr}(\rho_A^{(\text{ent})} O_A). \quad (\text{A.15})$$

Hence, local measurements cannot distinguish classical mixtures from reductions of entangled states.

The distinction emerges only at the global level.

Consider the separable mixed state

$$\rho_{AB}^{(\text{sep})} = \frac{1}{2}|01\rangle\langle 01| + \frac{1}{2}|10\rangle\langle 10|. \quad (\text{A.16})$$

Its reduced states are identical to those of the entangled Bell state:

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Tr}_B(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{sep})}) &= \frac{I}{2}, \\ \text{Tr}_A(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{sep})}) &= \frac{I}{2}. \end{aligned} \quad (\text{A.17})$$

However, the separable state lacks the coherence terms present in the entangled density operator.

This difference becomes visible through global quantities.

For the entangled state,

$$\gamma(\rho_{AB}(\theta)) = 1, \quad (\text{A.18})$$

whereas for the separable mixture,

$$\gamma(\rho_{AB}^{(\text{sep})}) = \frac{1}{2}. \quad (\text{A.19})$$

A second distinction appears in bipartite correlations.
For the entangled phase-evolved state,

$$\begin{aligned}\langle \sigma_x \otimes \sigma_x \rangle &= \cos \theta, \\ \langle \sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y \rangle &= \cos \theta,\end{aligned}\tag{A.20}$$

whereas for the separable mixture,

$$\begin{aligned}\langle \sigma_x \otimes \sigma_x \rangle &= 0, \\ \langle \sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y \rangle &= 0.\end{aligned}\tag{A.21}$$

Thus, states with identical reduced density operators may differ fundamentally at the global level.

Reduced states encode all locally accessible information, but do not capture global coherence or bipartite entanglement.

Appendix B

Derivation of Fidelity for a Pure Reference State

This appendix derives the simplified expression for quantum fidelity when one of the two states is pure. The result is used throughout Chapter 4 in the evaluation of fidelity with respect to Bell states.

Beyond its algebraic simplification, this derivation also clarifies the operational interpretation of fidelity as a projection probability onto a target quantum state.

B.1 General Definition of Fidelity

Let ρ and σ be density operators acting on a finite-dimensional Hilbert space. The general definition of quantum fidelity is

$$F(\rho, \sigma) = \left(\text{Tr} \sqrt{\sqrt{\rho} \sigma \sqrt{\rho}} \right)^2. \quad (\text{B.1})$$

In the present derivation, we consider the special case in which the reference state is pure:

$$\sigma = |\psi\rangle\langle\psi|, \quad (\text{B.2})$$

with

$$\langle\psi|\psi\rangle = 1. \quad (\text{B.3})$$

By construction, the operator σ is:

- Hermitian,

$$\sigma^\dagger = \sigma,$$

- positive semidefinite,

$$\langle\chi|\sigma|\chi\rangle \geq 0, \quad \forall |\chi\rangle,$$

- normalized,

$$\text{Tr}(\sigma) = 1.$$

Moreover, σ is a rank-one projector onto the one-dimensional subspace spanned by $|\psi\rangle$.

B.2 Reduction for a Pure Reference State

Substituting Eq. (B.2) into Eq. (B.1) gives

$$\sqrt{\rho} \sigma \sqrt{\rho} = \sqrt{\rho} |\psi\rangle\langle\psi| \sqrt{\rho}. \quad (\text{B.4})$$

Define the vector

$$|\phi\rangle = \sqrt{\rho} |\psi\rangle. \quad (\text{B.5})$$

Then Eq. (B.4) becomes

$$\sqrt{\rho} \sigma \sqrt{\rho} = |\phi\rangle\langle\phi|. \quad (\text{B.6})$$

The operator $|\phi\rangle\langle\phi|$ is again rank one and positive semidefinite.

B.3 Spectral Structure of the Rank-One Operator

The only nonzero eigenvalue of the operator in Eq. (B.6) is

$$\lambda = \langle\phi|\phi\rangle. \quad (\text{B.7})$$

Introducing the normalized vector

$$|\hat{\phi}\rangle = \frac{|\phi\rangle}{\|\phi\|}, \quad (\text{B.8})$$

the spectral decomposition becomes

$$|\phi\rangle\langle\phi| = \lambda |\hat{\phi}\rangle\langle\hat{\phi}|. \quad (\text{B.9})$$

The square root of the operator is therefore

$$\sqrt{|\phi\rangle\langle\phi|} = \sqrt{\lambda} |\hat{\phi}\rangle\langle\hat{\phi}|. \quad (\text{B.10})$$

Taking the trace gives

$$\text{Tr} \sqrt{|\phi\rangle\langle\phi|} = \sqrt{\lambda}. \quad (\text{B.11})$$

Substituting into Eq. (B.1), one obtains

$$F(\rho, \sigma) = \lambda = \langle\phi|\phi\rangle. \quad (\text{B.12})$$

Using Eq. (B.5),

$$\lambda = \langle\psi|\rho|\psi\rangle. \quad (\text{B.13})$$

B.4 Final Expression and Interpretation

Combining the previous results, the fidelity simplifies to

$$F(\rho, |\psi\rangle\langle\psi|) = \langle\psi|\rho|\psi\rangle. \quad (\text{B.14})$$

This is the expression used throughout Chapter 4 for fidelity with respect to Bell states.

The result admits a direct operational interpretation. Since

$$|\psi\rangle\langle\psi|$$

is the projector onto the state $|\psi\rangle$, the fidelity corresponds to the probability of obtaining the outcome $|\psi\rangle$ in a projective measurement performed on the state ρ .

Fidelity therefore quantifies the overlap between the physical state produced by the system and the chosen target reference state.

Appendix C

Derivations for Concurrence and Reduced Density Operators

This appendix derives the relations connecting concurrence, reduced density operators, and subsystem purity for pure bipartite two-qubit states.

The derivation clarifies how bipartite entanglement is encoded in the mixedness of the reduced subsystems, providing the theoretical foundation for the relations used throughout Chapter 4.

C.1 Coefficient-Matrix Representation

Consider a normalized two-qubit pure state written in the computational basis as

$$|\psi\rangle = a|00\rangle + b|01\rangle + c|10\rangle + d|11\rangle. \quad (\text{C.1})$$

Introduce the coefficient matrix

$$A_\psi = \begin{pmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{C.2})$$

so that the state can be expressed compactly as

$$|\psi\rangle = \sum_{i,j=0}^1 (A_\psi)_{ij} |i\rangle \otimes |j\rangle. \quad (\text{C.3})$$

This matrix representation provides a convenient bridge between the bipartite wavefunction and the reduced density operators.

C.2 Reduced Density Operators

The global density operator is

$$\rho_{AB} = |\psi\rangle\langle\psi|. \quad (\text{C.4})$$

Expanding Eq. (C.3) yields

$$\rho_{AB} = \sum_{i,j,k,l} (A_\psi)_{ij} (A_\psi)_{kl}^* |i\rangle\langle k| \otimes |j\rangle\langle l|. \quad (\text{C.5})$$

The reduced density operator on subsystem A is defined by the partial trace

$$\rho_A = \text{Tr}_B(\rho_{AB}). \quad (\text{C.6})$$

Applying the partial trace to Eq. (C.5) gives

$$\rho_A = \sum_{i,j,k,l} (A_\psi)_{ij} (A_\psi)^*_{kl} \left(\sum_v \langle v|j\rangle \langle l|v\rangle \right) |i\rangle \langle k|. \quad (\text{C.7})$$

Using the orthogonality relation

$$\sum_v \langle v|j\rangle \langle l|v\rangle = \delta_{jl}, \quad (\text{C.8})$$

one obtains

$$\rho_A = \sum_{i,k,j} (A_\psi)_{ij} (A_\psi)^*_{kj} |i\rangle \langle k|. \quad (\text{C.9})$$

Therefore, in matrix form,

$$\rho_A = A_\psi A_\psi^\dagger. \quad (\text{C.10})$$

Similarly,

$$\rho_B = A_\psi^\dagger A_\psi. \quad (\text{C.11})$$

C.3 Pure-State Concurrence

For pure two-qubit states, concurrence is defined as

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = |\langle\psi|(\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y)|\psi^*\rangle|. \quad (\text{C.12})$$

Using the computational-basis representation,

$$|\psi\rangle = \begin{pmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \\ d \end{pmatrix}, \quad |\psi^*\rangle = \begin{pmatrix} a^* \\ b^* \\ c^* \\ d^* \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{C.13})$$

one finds

$$(\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y)|\psi^*\rangle = \begin{pmatrix} -d^* \\ c^* \\ b^* \\ -a^* \end{pmatrix}. \quad (\text{C.14})$$

Taking the inner product yields

$$\langle\psi|(\sigma_y \otimes \sigma_y)|\psi^*\rangle = 2(ad - bc)^*. \quad (\text{C.15})$$

Therefore,

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = 2|ad - bc|. \quad (\text{C.16})$$

Using

$$\det(A_\psi) = ad - bc, \quad (\text{C.17})$$

the concurrence becomes

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = 2|\det(A_\psi)|. \quad (\text{C.18})$$

C.4 Relation with Reduced Density Operators

Using Eq. (C.10),

$$\rho_A = A_\psi A_\psi^\dagger, \quad (\text{C.19})$$

one obtains

$$\det(\rho_A) = \det(A_\psi) \det(A_\psi^\dagger) = |\det(A_\psi)|^2. \quad (\text{C.20})$$

Substituting into Eq. (C.18) gives

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = 2\sqrt{\det(\rho_A)}. \quad (\text{C.21})$$

This reproduces the relation introduced in Chapter 4 [see Eq. (4.27)].

An identical relation holds for subsystem B :

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = 2\sqrt{\det(\rho_B)}. \quad (\text{C.22})$$

These expressions show that bipartite entanglement is directly encoded in the reduced density operators.

C.5 Relation with Purity

For a single-qubit density operator ρ , one has

$$\text{Tr}(\rho) = 1, \quad (\text{C.23})$$

and purity

$$\gamma(\rho) = \text{Tr}(\rho^2). \quad (\text{C.24})$$

For 2×2 density operators, the determinant satisfies

$$\det(\rho) = \frac{1 - \gamma(\rho)}{2}. \quad (\text{C.25})$$

Substituting Eq. (C.25) into Eq. (4.27) yields

$$C(|\psi\rangle) = \sqrt{2(1 - \gamma(\rho_A))}. \quad (\text{C.26})$$

Therefore, for pure bipartite states, the mixedness of the reduced subsystem provides a direct quantitative measure of entanglement.

Separable states produce pure reduced density operators and therefore zero concurrence, whereas maximally entangled states produce maximally mixed reduced states and maximal concurrence.

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